

Common Errors

Common errors in the performance of crosswind approaches and landings are:

1. Attempted landing in crosswinds that exceed the airplane's maximum demonstrated crosswind component.
2. Undershooting or overshooting the turn from base leg to final approach.
3. Inadequate compensation for wind drift on final approach.
4. Unstable approach.
5. Excessive sink rate or too low an airspeed from increased drag and reduced vertical lift during sideslip.
6. Failure to touch down with the longitudinal axis aligned with the runway.
7. Touching down while drifting.
8. Excessive airspeed on touchdown.
9. Failure to apply appropriate flight control inputs during rollout.
10. Failure to maintain direction control on rollout.
11. Excessive braking.
12. Loss of aircraft control.

Turbulent Air Approach and Landing

For landing in turbulent conditions, the pilot should use a power-on approach at an airspeed slightly above the normal approach speed. This provides for more positive control of the airplane when strong horizontal wind gusts, or up and down drafts, are experienced. Like other power-on approaches, a coordinated combination of both pitch and power adjustments is usually required. The proper approach attitude and airspeed require a minimum round out and should result in little or no floating during the landing.

To maintain control during an approach in turbulent air with gusty crosswind, the pilot should use partial wing flaps. With less than full flaps, the airplane is in a higher pitch attitude. Thus, it requires less of a pitch change to establish the landing attitude and touchdown at a higher airspeed to ensure more positive control.

Pilots often use the normal approach speed plus one-half of the wind gust factors in turbulent conditions. If the normal speed is 70 knots, and the wind gusts are 15 knots, an increase of airspeed to 77 knots is appropriate. In any case, the airspeed and the flap setting should conform to airplane manufacturer's recommendations in the AFM/POH.

Use an adequate amount of power to maintain the proper airspeed and descent path throughout the approach, and retard the throttle to idling position only after the main wheels contact the landing surface. Care should be exercised in closing the throttle before the pilot is ready for touchdown. In turbulent conditions, the sudden or premature closing of the throttle may cause a sudden increase in the descent rate, resulting in a hard landing.

When landing from power approaches in turbulence, the touchdown is made with the airplane in approximately level flight attitude. The pitch attitude at touchdown would be only enough to prevent the nose-wheel from contacting the surface before the main wheels have touched the surface. After touchdown, the pilot should avoid the tendency to apply forward pressure on the yoke, as this may result in wheelbarrowing and possible loss of control. The pilot should allow the airplane to decelerate normally, assisted by careful use of wheel brakes and avoid heavy braking until the wings are devoid of lift and the airplane's full weight is resting on the landing gear.

Short-Field Approach and Landing

Short-field approaches and landings require the use of procedures for approaches and landings at fields with a relatively short landing area or where an approach is made over obstacles that limit the available landing area. [Figure 9-20 and Figure 9-21] This low-speed type of power-on approach is closely related to the performance of flight near minimum controllable airspeeds.

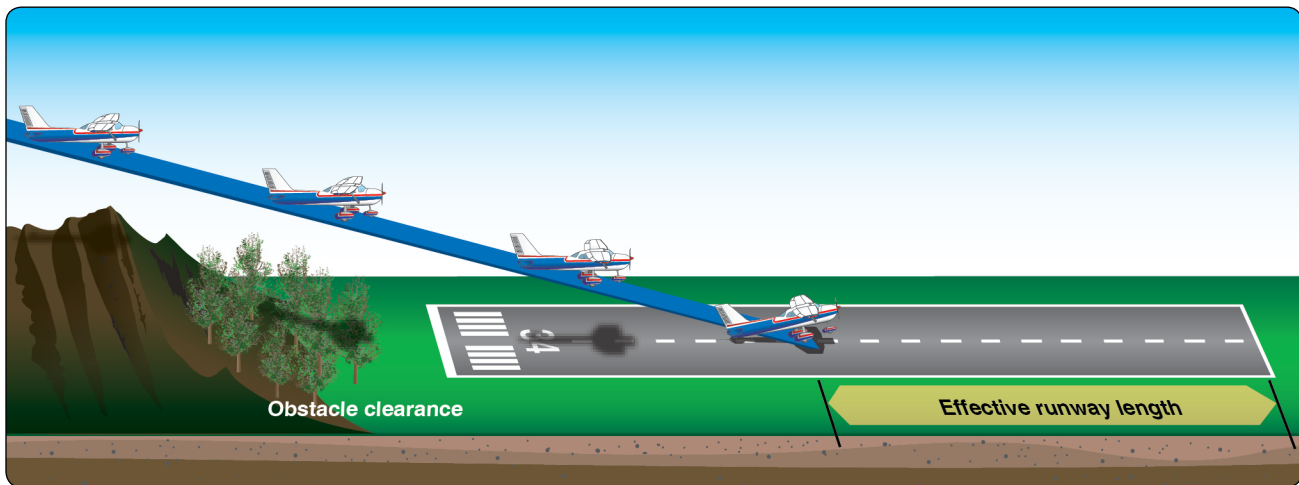


Figure 9-20. *Landing over an obstacle.*

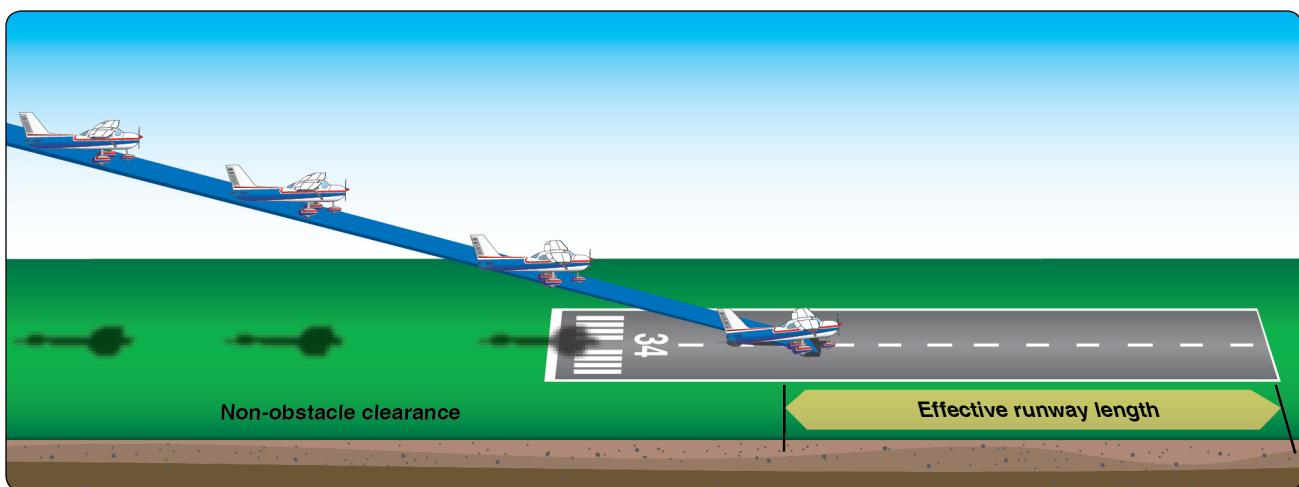


Figure 9-21. *Landing on a short field.*

To land within a short field or a confined area, the pilot needs to have precise, positive control of the rate of descent and airspeed, and fly an approach that clears any obstacles, results in little or no floating during the round out, and permits the airplane to be stopped in the shortest possible distance. When safety and conditions permit, a wider-than-normal pattern with a longer final approach may be used. This allows the pilot ample opportunity to adjust and stabilize the descent angle after the airplane is configured and trimmed. A stabilized approach is essential.

The procedures for landing on a short field or for landing approaches over obstacles as recommended in the AFM/POH should be used. [Figure 9-22 and Figure 9-23] These procedures generally involve a final approach started from an altitude of at least 500 feet higher than the touchdown area and the use of full flaps at an appropriate point during the final approach. For many general aviation airplanes this means flying a stabilized final approach with the flap setting that precedes full flaps. When the field is made, the pilot should extend full flaps and lower the nose in order to maintain airspeed and keep the aiming point stationary in the windscreen. When over the obstacle, the pilot may reduce power slightly. Ideally, if full flaps are extended at the correct point, the pilot will be in a position to slowly reduce power. When no manufacturer's recommended approach speed is available, a speed of not more than $1.3 V_{SO}$ is used. In gusty air, no more than one-half the gust factor is added. An excessive amount of airspeed could result in a touchdown too far from the runway threshold or an after-landing roll that exceeds the available landing area. When obstacles are present, a slightly steeper approach angle places the touchdown closer to the obstacle, which gives the pilot more room to stop.

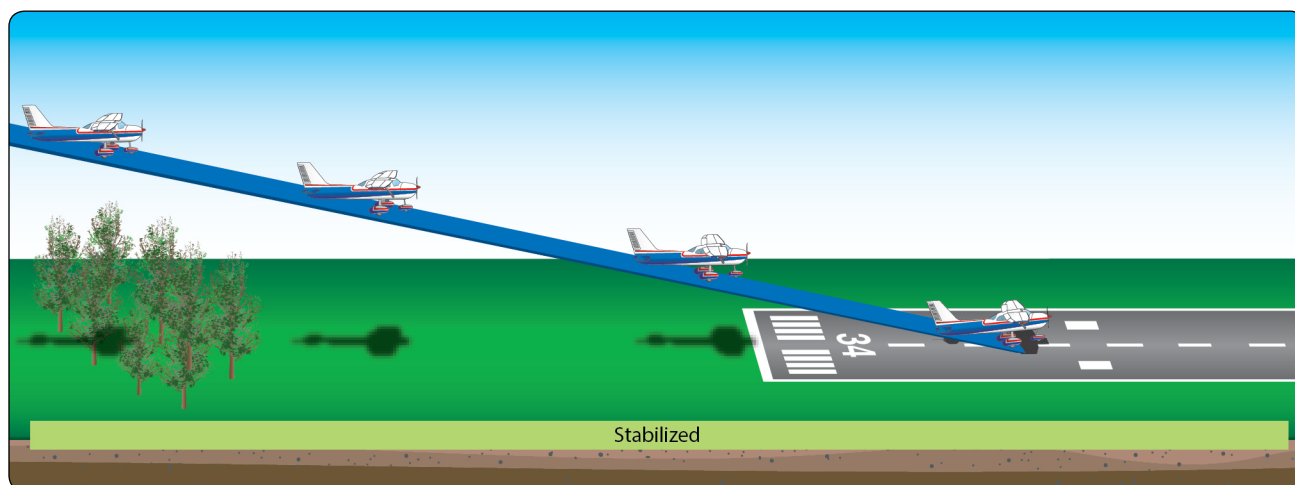


Figure 9-22. *Stabilized approach.*

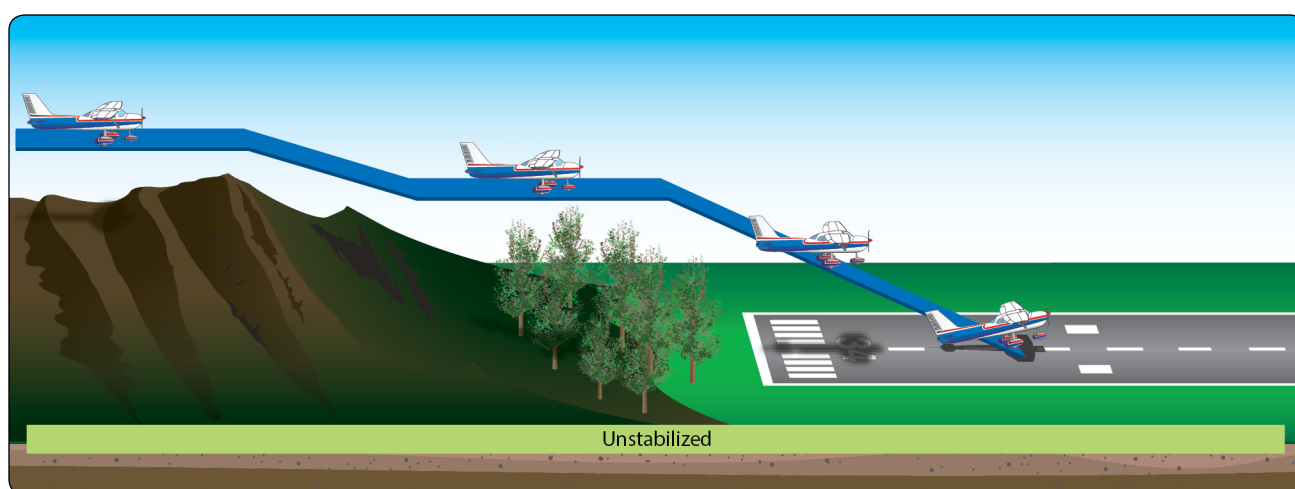


Figure 9-23. *Unstabilized approach.*

After the landing gear has been extended, if applicable, or when beginning a suitable final approach, the pilot simultaneously adjusts the power and the pitch attitude to establish and maintain the proper descent angle and airspeed. During a stabilized approach, small changes in the airplane's pitch attitude and power setting are needed when making corrections to the angle of descent and airspeed.

The short-field approach and landing is an accuracy approach to an aiming point. The procedures previously outlined in the section on the stabilized approach concept are used. If it appears that the obstacle clearance is excessive and touchdown occurs well beyond the desired aiming point, leaving insufficient room to stop, power is reduced while lowering the pitch attitude to steepen the descent path and increase the rate of descent. If it appears that the descent angle does not ensure safe clearance of obstacles, power is increased while simultaneously raising the pitch attitude to shallow the descent path and decrease the rate of descent. Care should be taken to avoid excessively low airspeeds. When operating at high AOA's and low airspeeds, an increase in pitch attitude increases the rate of descent. When there is doubt regarding the outcome of the approach, the pilot should execute a go-around, evaluate the situation, and decide whether to make another approach or divert to a more suitable landing area.

Because the final approach over obstacles is made at a relatively steep approach angle and close to the airplane's stalling speed, the initiation of the round out or flare needs to be judged accurately to avoid flying into the ground or stalling prematurely and sinking rapidly. A lack of floating during the flare with sufficient control to touch down properly is verification that the approach speed was correct.

Touchdown should occur at the minimum controllable airspeed with the airplane in approximately the pitch attitude that results in a power-off stall when the throttle is closed. Care should be exercised to avoid closing the throttle too rapidly, as closing the throttle may result in an immediate increase in the rate of descent and a hard landing. Note that a small amount of power provides more airflow over the elevator giving it more authority at low airspeeds to enable the pilot to flare. There is a risk that low airspeed and a windmilling propeller blocking airflow over the elevator may make it difficult to flare.

Upon touchdown, the airplane is held in this positive pitch attitude as long as the elevators remain effective and if recommended by the manufacturer. This provides aerodynamic braking to assist in deceleration. However, immediately upon touchdown of the nose-wheel,

maximum braking is applied to minimize the after-landing roll. For most airplanes, aerodynamic drag is the single biggest factor in slowing the aircraft in the first quarter of its speed decay. Brakes become increasingly effective as airspeed and lift decrease. The pilot increases braking effectiveness by holding the wheel or stick full back while smoothly applying brakes. Back pressure is needed because the airplane tends to lean forward with heavy braking. Best braking results are always achieved with the wheels in an “incipient skid condition.” That means a little more brake pressure would lock up the wheels entirely. In an incipient skid, the wheels are turning, but with great reluctance. If the wheels lock, braking effectiveness drops dramatically in a skid and the tires could be damaged. The airplane is normally stopped within the shortest possible distance consistent with safety and controllability. If the proper approach speed has been maintained, resulting in minimum float during the round out and the touchdown made at minimum control speed, excessive braking should not be needed.

Common Errors

Common errors in the performance of short-field approaches and landings are:

1. A final approach that necessitates an overly steep approach and high sink rate.
2. Unstable approach.
3. Undue delay in initiating glide path corrections.
4. Too low an airspeed on final resulting in inability to flare properly and landing hard.
5. Too high an airspeed resulting in floating on round out.
6. Prematurely reducing power to idle on round out resulting in hard landing.
7. Touchdown with excessive airspeed.
8. Excessive and/or unnecessary braking after touchdown.
9. Failure to maintain directional control.
10. Failure to recognize and abort a poor approach that cannot be completed safely.

Soft-Field Approach and Landing

Landing on fields that are rough or have soft surfaces, such as snow, sand, mud, or tall grass, requires unique procedures. When landing on such surfaces, the objective is to touch down as smoothly as possible and at the slowest possible landing speed. A pilot needs to control the airplane in a manner that the wings support the weight of the airplane as long as practical to minimize stresses imposed on the landing gear by a rough surface or to prevent sinking into a soft surface.

The approach for the soft-field landing is similar to the normal approach used for operating into long, firm landing areas. The major difference between the two is that a degree of power is used throughout the level-off and touchdown for the soft-field landing. This allows the airspeed to slowly dissipate while the airplane is flown 1 to 2 feet off the surface in ground effect. When the wheels first touch the ground, the wings continue to support much of the weight of the airplane. [Figure 9-24] This technique minimizes the nose-over forces that suddenly affect the airplane at the moment of touchdown.

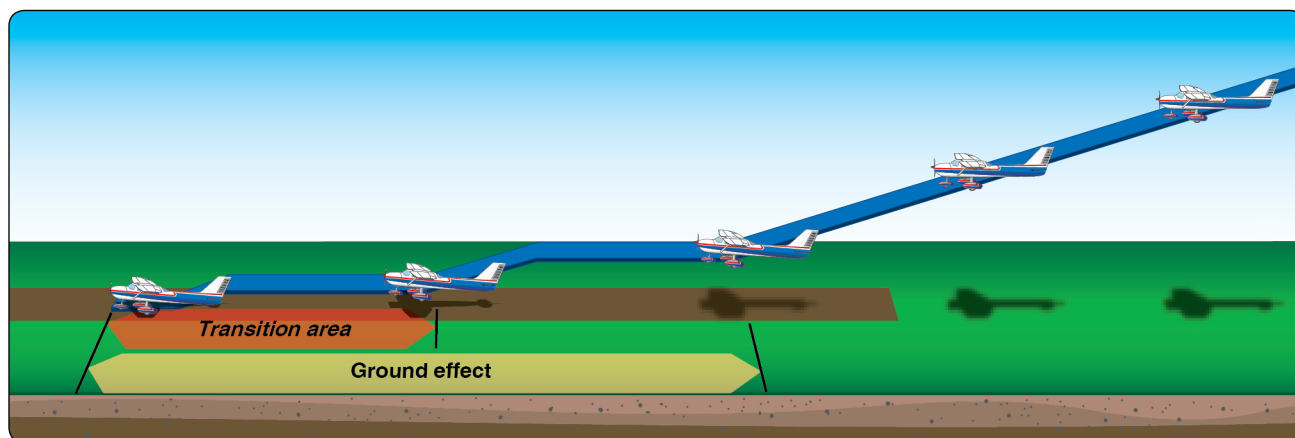


Figure 9-24. *Soft/rough field approach and landing.*

The use of flaps during soft-field landings aids in touching down at minimum speed and is recommended whenever practical. In low-wing airplanes, the flaps may suffer damage from mud, stones, or slush thrown up by the wheels. If flaps are used, it is generally inadvisable to retract them during the after-landing roll because the need for flap retraction is less important than the need for total concentration on maintaining full control of the airplane.

The final-approach airspeed used for short-field landings is equally appropriate to soft-field landings. The use of higher approach speeds may result in excessive float in ground effect, and floating makes a smooth, controlled touchdown even more difficult. There is no reason for a steep angle of descent unless obstacles are present in the approach path.

Touchdown on a soft or rough field is made at the lowest possible airspeed with the airplane in a nose-high pitch attitude. In nose-wheel type airplanes, after the main wheels touch the surface, the pilot should hold sufficient back-elevator pressure to keep the nose-wheel off the surface. Using back-elevator pressure and engine power, the pilot can control the rate at which the weight of the airplane is transferred from the wings to the wheels.

Field conditions may warrant that the pilot maintain a flight condition in which the main wheels are just touching the surface but the weight of the airplane is still being supported by the wings until a suitable taxi surface is reached. At any time during this transition phase, before the weight of the airplane is being supported by the wheels, and before the nose-wheel is on the surface, the ability is retained to apply full power and perform a safe takeoff (obstacle clearance and field length permitting) should the pilot elect to abandon the landing. Once committed to a landing, the pilot should gently lower the nose-wheel to the surface. A slight addition of power usually aids in easing the nose-wheel down.

The use of brakes on a soft field is not needed and should be avoided as this may tend to impose a heavy load on the nose-gear due to premature or hard contact with the landing surface, causing the nose-wheel to dig in. The soft or rough surface itself provides sufficient reduction in the airplane's forward speed. Often upon landing on a very soft field, an increase in power may be needed to keep the airplane moving and from becoming stuck in the soft surface.

Common Errors

Common errors in the performance of soft-field approaches and landings are:

1. Excessive descent rate on final approach.
2. Excessive airspeed on final approach.
3. Unstable approach.
4. Round out too high above the runway surface.
5. Poor power management during round out and touchdown.
6. Hard touchdown.
7. Inadequate control of the airplane weight transfer from wings to wheels after touchdown.
8. Allowing the nose-wheel to "fall" to the runway after touchdown rather than controlling its descent.

Power-Off Accuracy Approaches

Power-off accuracy approaches and landings involve gliding to a touchdown at a given point (or within a specified distance beyond that point), while using a specific pattern and with the engine idling. The objective is to instill in the pilot the judgment and procedures necessary for accurately flying the airplane, without power, to a safe landing.

The ability to estimate the distance an airplane glides to a landing is the real basis of all power-off accuracy approaches and landings. The distance to be covered largely determines the amount of maneuvering needed to complete an approach from a given altitude. While developing the pilot's ability to estimate gliding distance, power-off accuracy approaches call upon the pilot to use a variety of techniques to set and maintain an appropriate glide angle and airspeed to the aiming point.

With experience and practice, altitudes up to approximately 1,000 feet can be estimated with fair accuracy; while above this level the accuracy in judgment of height above the ground decreases, since all features tend to merge. The best aid in perfecting the ability to judge height above this altitude is through the indications of the altimeter and associating them with the general appearance of the earth.

The judgment of altitude in feet, hundreds of feet, or thousands of feet is not as important as the ability to estimate gliding angle and its resultant distance. Regardless of altitude, a pilot who knows the normal glide angle of the airplane can estimate, with reasonable accuracy, the approximate spot along a given ground path at which the airplane will land. A pilot who has the ability to accurately estimate altitude, can also judge how much maneuvering is possible and safe during the glide, which is important to the choice of landing areas in an actual emergency.

The objective of a good final approach is to descend at an angle that permits the airplane to reach the desired aiming point at an airspeed that results in a predictable float where touchdown occurs on or within a specified distance beyond a designated point. To accomplish this, it is essential that both the descent angle and the airspeed be accurately controlled.

Unlike a normal approach when the power setting is variable, on a power-off approach the power is fixed at the idle setting. Pitch attitude is adjusted to control the airspeed. This also changes the glide or descent angle. If an airplane is on approach with an airspeed higher than best glide, pitching down will increase the airspeed and steepen the descent angle, while pitching up will reduce the airspeed and shallow the descent angle. Conversely, if the airspeed is below best glide, then pitching down will increase the airspeed and shallow the descent angle, while pitching up will reduce the airspeed and will greatly steepen the descent angle. If the airspeed is too high, the pilot

should raise the nose; and when the airspeed is too low, lower the nose. If the pitch attitude is raised too high, the airplane settles rapidly due to a slow airspeed and insufficient lift. For this reason, the pilot should never try to stretch a glide to reach the desired landing spot.

Note that certain single-engine turboprop airplanes experience an excessive rate of descent if the power is set to flight idle. In some cases, if the powerplant failed, the manufacturer's checklist calls for feathering the propeller during a power-off glide. During flight training in these airplanes, the propeller is not feathered as would be the case in an emergency or true power-off glide. During training and pilot certification, where the manufacturer's checklist calls for propeller feathering in a power-off situation, the pilot should set sufficient power to provide the performance that would be expected with the propeller feathered.

Uniform approach patterns, such as the 90° or 180° power-off approaches, are described further in this chapter. Practicing these approaches provides a pilot with a basis on which to develop judgment in gliding distance and in planning an approach. While square patterns demonstrate good planning, they are not required and may not be appropriate for every approach. For example, when conditions are not as expected, pilots may need to dog-leg away from the runway on base or dog-leg toward the runway on base. Pilots may use S-turns, slips, early or late extension of flaps, reduce airspeed below best glide, or increase airspeed slightly above best glide in a headwind in order to stabilize the remaining approach, to reach the desired aiming point at an appropriate speed, and to touch down where planned. Note that selection of the runway numbers as the touchdown point does not provide a safety cushion in case of a mechanical problem or misjudgment. Selecting a point farther down the runway establishes an increased safety margin.

The basic procedure in these approaches involves closing the throttle at a given altitude and gliding to a key position. Starting with the same energy (airspeed and height) each time the throttle is closed, makes the maneuver more predictable. The key position, like the pattern itself, is not the primary objective; it is merely a convenient point in the air from which the pilot can judge what to do such that the landing occurs at or just beyond the desired point. The selected key position should be one that is appropriate for the available altitude and the wind condition. From the key position, the pilot should constantly evaluate the situation.

It should be emphasized that, although accurate spot touchdowns are important, safe and properly executed approaches and landings are vital. A pilot should never sacrifice a good approach or landing just to land on the desired spot.

90° Power-Off Approach

The 90° power-off approach is made from a base leg and requires an approximate 90° turn onto the final approach. The approach path may be varied by positioning the base leg closer to or farther out from the approach end of the runway according to wind conditions. [Figure 9-25] The glide from the key position on the base leg through the 90° turn to the final approach is the final part of all accuracy landing maneuvers. The 90° power-off approach usually begins from a rectangular pattern at approximately 1,000 feet above the ground or at normal traffic pattern altitude. The airplane is flown on a downwind leg at the same distance from the landing surface as in a normal traffic pattern. The before-landing checklist should be completed on the downwind leg, including extension of the landing gear if the airplane is equipped with retractable gear.

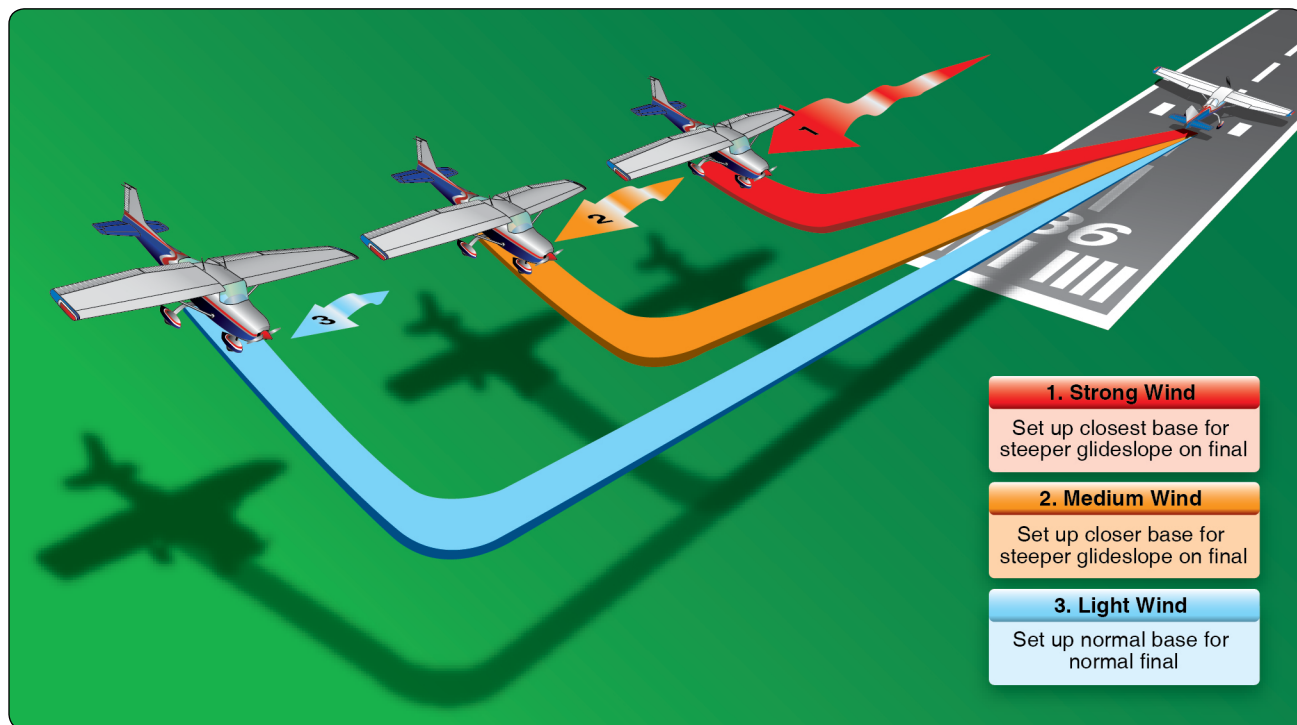


Figure 9-25. Plan the base leg for wind conditions.

After a medium-banked turn onto the base leg is completed, the throttle is retarded slightly and the airspeed allowed to decrease to the normal base-leg speed. [Figure 9-26] On the base leg, the airspeed, wind drift correction, and altitude are maintained while proceeding to the 45° key position. At this position, the intended landing spot appears to be on a 45° angle from the airplane's nose.

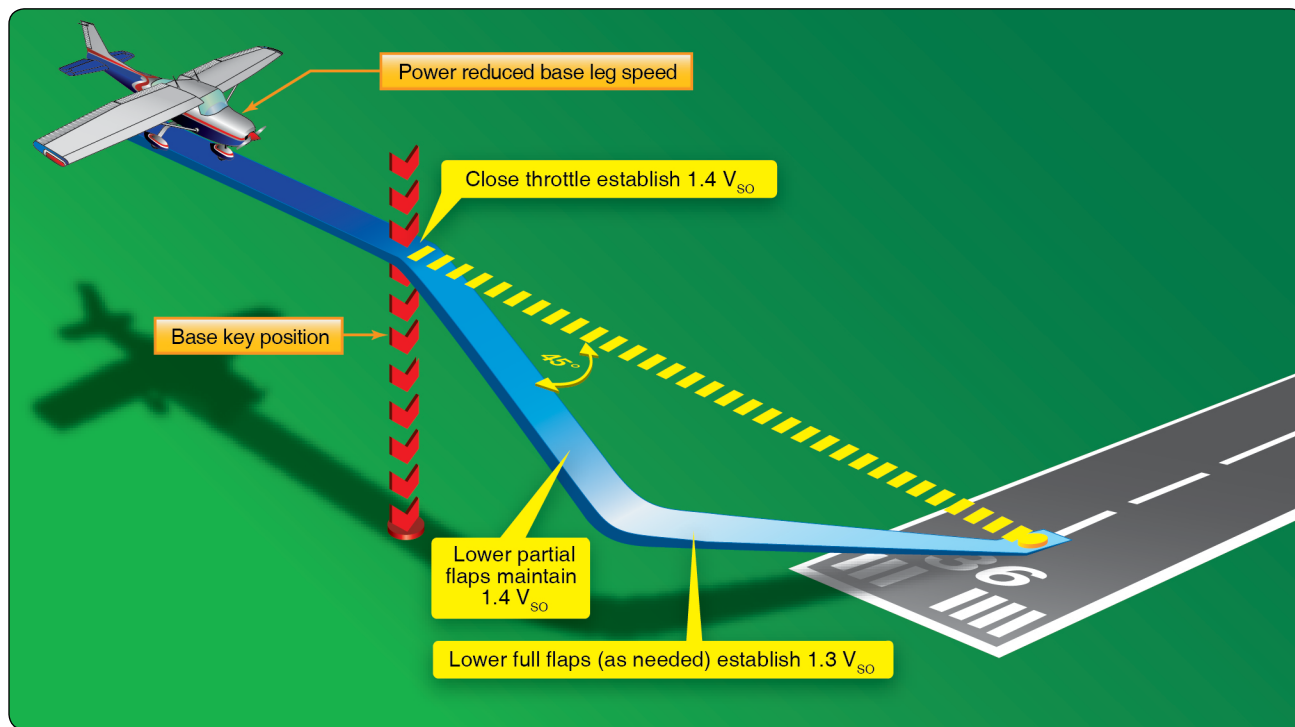


Figure 9-26. 90° power-off approach.

The pilot can determine the strength and direction of the wind from the amount of crab necessary to hold the desired ground track on the base leg. This helps in planning the turn onto the final approach and provides some indication of when to lower the flaps.

At the 45° key position, the throttle is closed completely, the propeller control (if equipped) advanced to the full increase revolution per minute (rpm) position, and altitude maintained until the airspeed decreases to the manufacturer's recommended glide speed. In the absence of a recommended speed, the pilot should use 1.4 V_{SO}. When this airspeed is attained, the nose is lowered to maintain the gliding speed and the controls trimmed. The wing flaps may be gradually lowered and the pitch attitude adjusted, as needed, to establish the proper descent angle. The base-to-final turn is planned and accomplished so that upon rolling out of the turn, the airplane is aligned with the runway centerline. If the approach is planned to be slightly high in the current configuration, the pilot will be assured of making the aiming point. The wing flaps may be lowered, as needed, and the pitch attitude adjusted, as needed, to establish the proper descent angle and airspeed (1.3 V_{SO}), and the controls trimmed. Slight adjustments in pitch attitude and slips are used as necessary to control the glide angle and airspeed. A crab or side slip can be used to maintain the desired flight path. A forward slip may be used momentarily to steepen the descent without changing the airspeed. Full flaps should be delayed until it is clear that adding them will not cause the landing to be short of the point. The pilot should never try to stretch the glide or retract the flaps to reach the desired landing spot.

On short final, full attention is given to making a good, safe landing rather than concentrating on the selected landing spot. The approach angle used and final approach airspeed determine the probability of landing on the spot, and late adjustments to these parameters are not appropriate. It is always better to execute a good landing away from the spot than to make a poor landing precisely on or just past the spot.

180° Power-Off Approach

The 180° power-off approach is executed by gliding with idle power from a given point on a downwind leg to a preselected landing spot. [Figure 9-27] It is an extension of the principles involved in the 90° power-off approach just described. The objective is to further develop judgment in estimating distances and glide ratios, in that the airplane is flown without power from a higher altitude and through a 90° turn to reach the base-leg position at a proper altitude for executing the 90° approach.

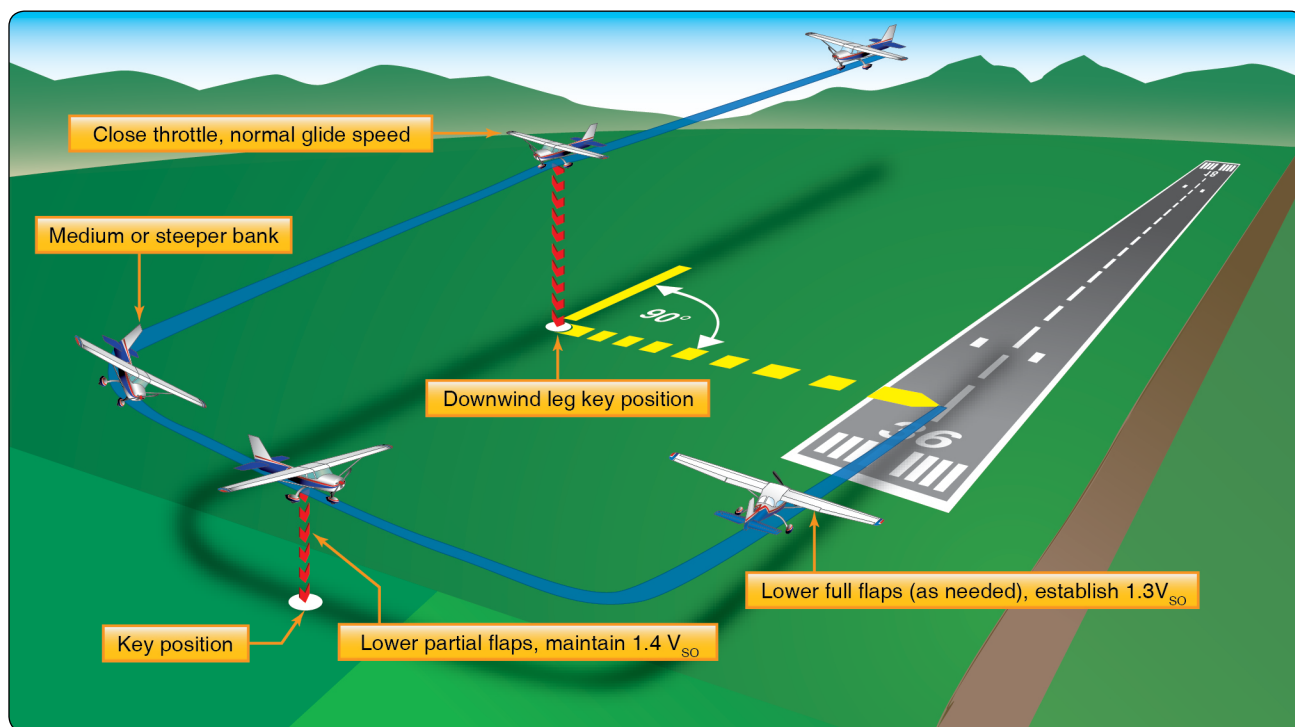


Figure 9-27. 180° power-off approach.

The 180° power-off approach requires more planning and judgment than the 90° power-off approach. In the execution of 180° power-off approaches, the airplane is flown on a downwind heading parallel to the landing runway. The altitude from which this type of approach is started varies with the type of airplane, but should usually not exceed 1,000 feet above the ground, except with large airplanes. Greater accuracy in judgment and maneuvering is required at higher altitudes.

When abreast of or opposite the desired landing spot, the throttle is closed and altitude maintained while decelerating to the manufacturer's recommended glide speed or $1.4 V_{SO}$. The point at which the throttle is closed is the downwind key position.

The turn from the downwind leg to the base leg is a uniform turn with a medium or slightly steeper bank. The degree of bank and amount of this initial turn depend upon the glide angle of the airplane and the velocity and direction of the wind. Again, the base leg is positioned as needed for the altitude or wind condition. Position the base leg to conserve or dissipate altitude so as to reach the desired landing spot.

The turn onto the base leg is made at an altitude high enough and close enough to permit the airplane to glide to what would normally be the base key position in a 90° power-off approach. Initial flaps may be extended prior to the base key position if needed.

Although the base key position is important, it should not be overemphasized nor considered as a fixed point on the ground. Many inexperienced pilots may gain a conception of it as a particular landmark, such as a tree, crossroad, or other visual reference, to be reached at a certain altitude. This misconception leaves the pilot at a total loss any time such objects are not present. Both altitude and geographical location should be varied as much as is practical to eliminate any such misconceptions. After reaching the base key position, the approach and landing are the same as in the 90° power-off approach.

Common Errors

Common errors in the performance of power-off accuracy approaches are:

1. Downwind leg is too far from the runway/landing area.
2. Overextension of downwind leg resulting from a tailwind.
3. Inadequate compensation for wind drift on base leg.
4. Skidding turns in an effort to increase gliding distance.
5. Failure to lower landing gear in retractable gear airplanes.
6. Attempting to "stretch" the glide during an undershoot.
7. Premature flap extension/landing gear extension.
8. Use of throttle to increase the glide instead of merely clearing the engine.
9. Forcing the airplane onto the runway in order to avoid overshooting the designated landing spot.

Emergency Approaches and Landings (Simulated)

During dual training flights, the instructor should give simulated emergency landings by retarding the throttle and calling “simulated emergency landing.” The objective of these simulated emergency landings is to develop a pilot’s accuracy, judgment, planning, procedures, and confidence when little or no power is available. A simulated emergency landing may be given with the airplane in any configuration. If the simulated power failure occurs while above best glide speed, the pilot allows the airplane to slow (or may even bleed off speed by climbing) until reaching best glide speed. When reaching that speed, the nose can be lowered and the airplane trimmed to maintain that speed. If the failure occurs at or below best glide speed, the nose should be lowered immediately to maintain or accelerate to best glide speed. The pilot should ensure that the flaps and landing gear are in the proper configuration for the existing situation.

A constant gliding speed is usually maintained because variations of gliding speed nullify all attempts at accuracy in judgment of gliding distance and the landing spot. The many variables, such as altitude, obstruction, wind direction, landing direction, landing surface and gradient, and landing distance requirements of the airplane, determine the pattern and approach procedures to use.

The pilot may use any combination of normal gliding maneuvers, from wings level to spirals to eventually arrive at the normal key position at a normal traffic pattern altitude for the selected landing area. From the key point on, the approach is a normal power-off approach. [Figure 9-28]

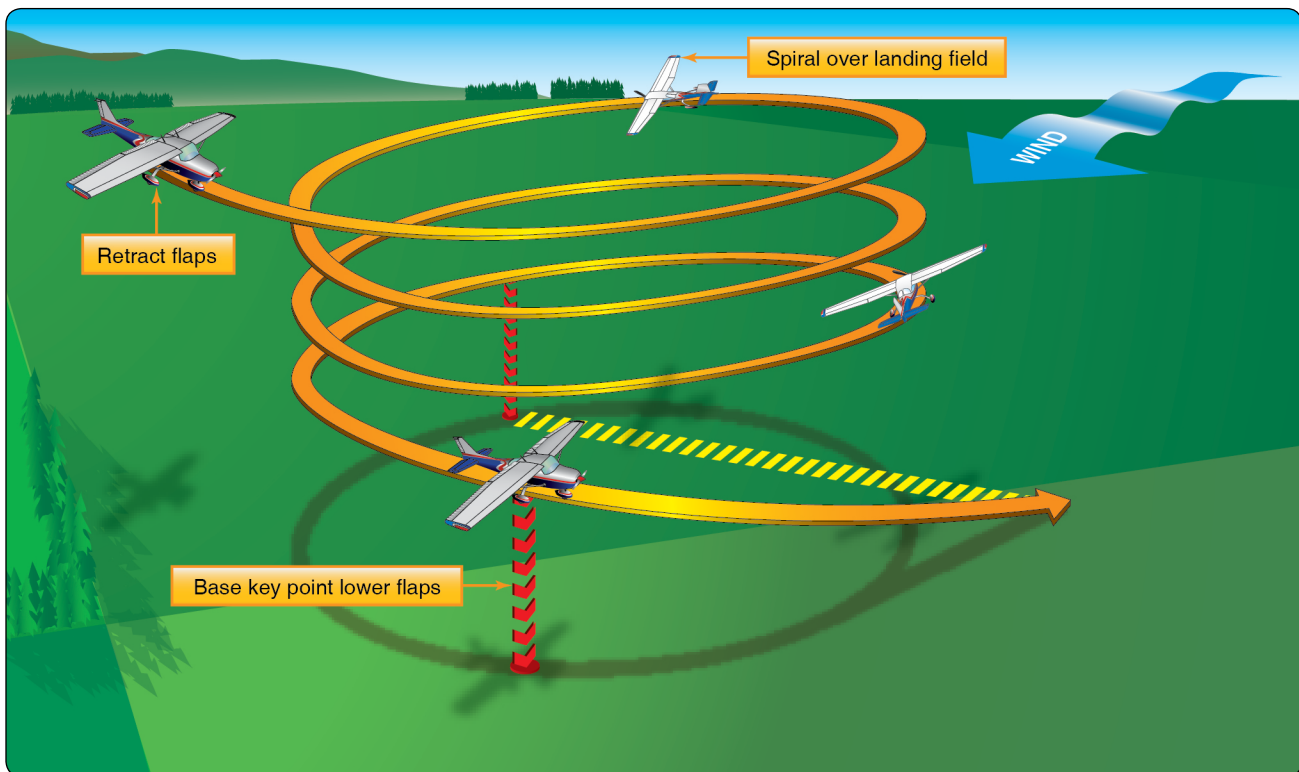


Figure 9-28. *Remain over intended landing area.*

With the greater choice of fields afforded by higher altitudes, the inexperienced pilot may be inclined to delay making a decision, and with considerable altitude in which to maneuver, errors in maneuvering and estimation of glide distance may develop.

All pilots should learn to determine the wind direction and estimate its speed from the windsock at the airport, smoke from factories or houses, dust, brush fires, wind farms, or patterns displayed on nearby bodies of water .

Once a field has been selected, a pilot should indicate the proposed landing area to the instructor. Normally, the pilot should plan and fly a pattern for landing on the field first elected until the instructor terminates the simulated emergency landing. This provides the instructor an opportunity to explain and correct any errors; it also gives the pilot an opportunity to see the results of the errors. However, if the pilot realizes during the approach that a poor field has been selected—one that would obviously result in disaster if a landing were to be made—and there is a more advantageous field within gliding distance, a change to the better field should be permitted. The instructor should thoroughly explain the hazards involved in these last-minute decisions, such as excessive maneuvering at very low altitudes.

Instructors should stress slipping the airplane, using flaps, varying the position of the base leg, and varying the turn onto final approach as ways of correcting for misjudgment of altitude and glide angle.

Eagerness to get down is one of the most common faults of inexperienced pilots during simulated emergency landings. They forget about speed and arrive at the edge of the field with too much speed to permit a safe landing. Too much speed is just as dangerous as too little;

it results in excessive floating and overshooting the desired landing spot. Instructors need to stress during their instruction that pilots cannot dive at a field and expect to land on it.

During all simulated emergency landings, keep the engine warm and cleared. During a simulated emergency landing, either the instructor or the pilot should have complete control of the throttle. There should be no doubt as to who has control since many near accidents have occurred from such misunderstandings.

Every simulated emergency landing approach is terminated as soon as it can be determined whether or not a safe landing is assured. In no case should it be continued to a point where it creates an undue hazard or an annoyance to persons or property on the ground.

In addition to flying the airplane from the point of simulated engine failure to where it is known that a reasonable safe landing could be made (or to where it is known that the approach cannot be salvaged), a pilot should also receive instruction on certain emergency flight deck procedures. The habit of performing these procedures should be developed to such an extent that, if an engine failure actually occurs, a pilot checks the critical items that might get the engine operating again while selecting a field and planning an approach. Combining the two operations—accomplishing emergency procedures and planning and flying the approach—is difficult during the early training in emergency landings.

There are steps and procedures pilots should follow in a simulated emergency landing. Although they may differ somewhat from the procedures used in an actual emergency, they should be learned thoroughly and each step called out to the instructor. The use of a checklist is strongly recommended. Most airplane manufacturers provide a checklist of the appropriate items. [Figure 9-29]

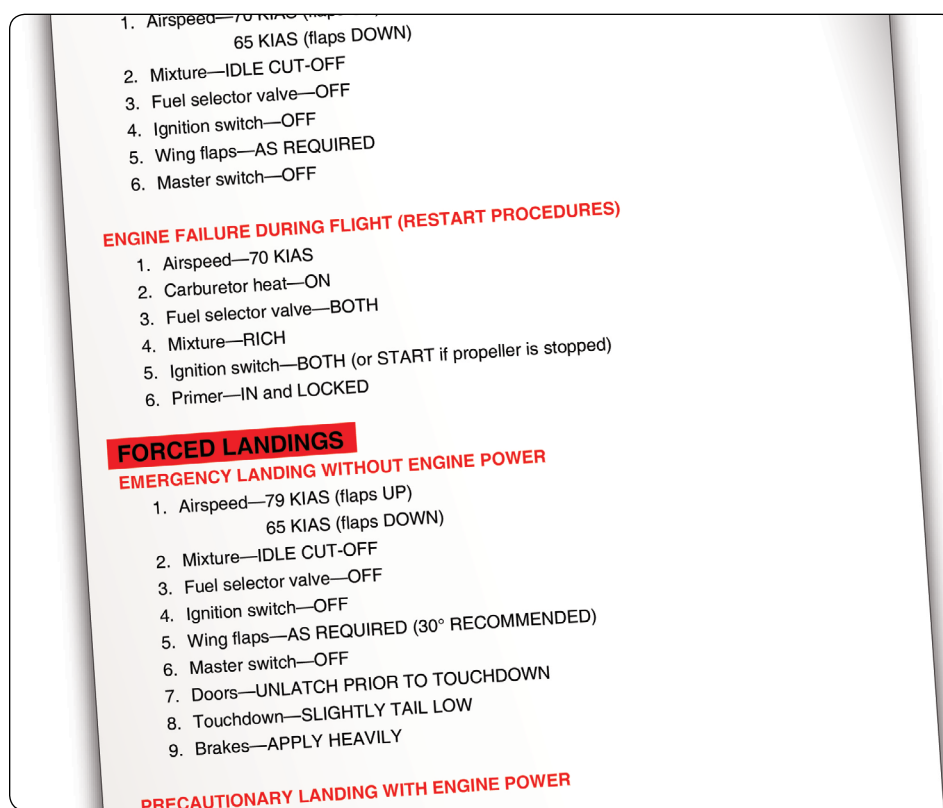


Figure 9-29. Sample emergency checklist.

Critical items to be checked include the position of the fuel tank selector, the quantity of fuel in the tank selected, the fuel pressure gauge to see if the electric fuel pump is needed, the position of the mixture control, the position of the magneto switch, and the use of carburetor heat. Many actual emergency landings have been made and later found to be the result of the fuel selector valve being positioned to an empty tank while the other tank had plenty of fuel. It may be wise to change the position of the fuel selector valve even though the fuel gauge indicates fuel in all tanks because fuel gauges can be inaccurate. Many actual emergency landings could have been prevented if the pilots had developed the habit of checking these critical items during flight training.

Instruction in emergency procedures is not limited to simulated emergency landings caused by power failures. Other emergencies associated with the operation of the airplane should be explained, demonstrated, and practiced if practicable. Among these emergencies are fire in flight, electrical or hydraulic system malfunctions, unexpected severe weather conditions, engine overheating, imminent fuel exhaustion, and the emergency operation of airplane systems and equipment.